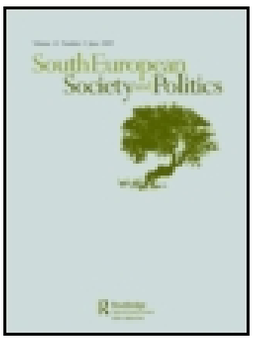

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Referendum on Renzi: The 2016 Vote on the Italian Constitutional Revision

Luigi Ceccarini* and Fabio Bordignon*

ABSTRACT
The 2016 constitutional referendum could have marked a new phase in Italian politics, producing a clear shift towards a majoritarian (and de facto presidential) democracy. But a substantial majority of voters rejected the reforms promoted by Matteo Renzi, leading to his resignation as Prime Minister. Once again, an attempt to redesign the Italian institutional framework failed due to party conflicts. This time, the referendum turned into a vote on Renzi himself. This article examines the background to the institutional reforms and the changing dynamics of the referendum campaign. Discussing the final outcome, it argues that this could produce a sort of U-turn in the long Italian transition.

KEYWORDS
Italy; Constitutional reform; Constitutional referendum; Matteo Renzi; Third Republic; Presidentialisation; Personalisation

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The 4th of December 2016 is a date that will be remembered in Italian political history, for what it meant, and for what it might have meant for the evolution of the national political system. This was the constitutional referendum with the highest rate of participation to date (65.5 per cent), compared to turnouts of 34 and 53 per cent respectively in 2001 and 2006.[1] As shown in Table 1, almost 60 per cent of those voting rejected the constitutional reform promoted by the government led by Matteo Renzi, whose personal gamble on the referendum outcome led to his resignation as prime minister. It was a consultation that was in many ways unprecedented: for the interest it generated, the bitterness of the political conflict it provoked, and the resulting high turnout (Pedrazzani & Pinto 2017; Addeo & Fruncillo 2017). The factors that weighed upon the outcome went far beyond the substance of the proposed reforms. Most significant were the positions taken by the main party leaders, and especially the polarisation around the figure of the prime minister and his government.

The main point of the constitutional reform was to restructure parliament through a series of changes that would do away with symmetric bicameralism (a term used to describe a system with two chambers which have the same powers and the same functions). In combination with the new electoral law, the so-called *Italicum*, the reforms would have had a significant impact on Italian institutional arrangements and on the mechanics of the whole political system, producing a clear shift towards a *majoritarian democracy*.

For these reasons, the referendum was supposed by its proponents to mark the beginning of a new phase of Italian politics after the transition set in motion in 2011 by the crisis of Berlusconism (Bosco & McDonnell 2012; Ceccarini, Diamanti & Lazar 2012), and then

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Table 1. Results of the 4 December 2016 Italian constitutional referendum.

	Votes	%
Yes	13,431,087	40.9
No	19,421,025	59.1
Valid votes	32,852,112	100.0
Blank / invalid	392,146	
Voters (turnout)	33,244,258	(65.5)
Eligible voters	50,773,284	

Source: Italian Ministry of the Interior.

exacerbated by the unexpected outcome of the general election held on February 2013. However, even the rejection of the reform could decisively alter the functioning of the Italian political system in the years to come.

This article analyses the choice that Italian citizens found themselves facing in the constitutional referendum of 2016, tries to explain the result, and considers the possible implications. The first section provides a brief outline of the various attempts that have been made, in Italian political history, to reform the country's institutions. The political situation that emerged following the previous general election is also discussed, to enable the reader to better understand the context in which the referendum took place. The second section summarises the substance of the reforms and their connection with electoral law. In particular, it seeks to delineate the reforms' possible meaning, in the context of the passage between the various Italian 'republics' that took place as part of the long transition beginning with the political and institutional crisis of the early 1990s. The third section describes the meaning which the referendum acquired during the campaign, and the debate over the merits and the demerits of the reform. The fourth section describes the alliances in the field and the role played by the parties and, specifically, by the main party actor: the prime minister and secretary of the centre-left PD (Partito Democratico – Democratic Party), Matteo Renzi. The fifth section focuses on the political mood and the orientation of public opinion, showing diachronically what led to the victory of the No vote, and how party divisions influenced the outcome of the consultation. The sixth section analyses the consequences of the vote, with reference to the immediate effects and possible long-term consequences of the rejection of the reform project. The concluding section then offers a final (but necessarily open-ended) evaluation based on the questions presented in the preceding sections.

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The long road to institutional change

Many observers maintain that there has been only one Italian Republic: that there has never been a genuine break with respect to the institutional framework defined by the Constitution of 1948. While this may be true from a strictly formal and juridical point of view, it is also true that the *material constitution* has substantially moved away, over time, from its original configuration. Italy can be said to have witnessed the gradual emergence of a majoritarian democracy (Lijphart 1984) and a presidentialised political system (Poguntke & Webb 2005, Calise 2005).

Although some slow processes of change had taken place in the previous two decades, accompanied by a number of significant reform projects, a real watershed can be identified in the early 1990s. The transition from a proportional to a (mainly) majoritarian electoral law

following the referendums of 1991 and 1993[2], together with the crisis of the traditional parties and the emergence of new political actors, transformed Italian politics.

Italian *party democracy* (Manin 1997) had, since its inception in the aftermath of World War II, gradually degenerated into a kind of 'partitocracy'. The large mass parties that had dominated the scene until that time were now perceived as self-referential entities barricaded within the institutions: *cartelised* parties, distant from society and undermined by the phenomenon of corruption. The *polarised pluralism* of the previous 40 years (Sartori 1970) had coincided with a substantially 'blocked' system, unable to produce either alternation in government or government stability.

The crisis of the early 1990s created a need for rules and institutions that would reduce the distance between citizens and politics and promote a model of democracy oriented towards competition and decision-making. Among citizens, as among political leaders, the belief became dominant that elections should produce a clear winner, and that the voters should be able to choose the government, if not the Prime Minister, directly, according to a 'presidential' logic. The idea was therefore widespread at that time that institutional reform had to be based on three pillars: (1) the transition to a majoritarian democracy, (2) the strengthening of the executive with respect to Parliament, and (3) the transformation of the state in a federal direction, through the transfer of powers from the central institutions to the regions and municipalities (Diamanti 2001).

For these reasons, there was talk of a First Republic and a Second Republic. Such a transition was clearly apparent in certain practical changes. The new (majoritarian) electoral rules had produced a bipolar party system based on the competition between two blocs: the centre-left and the centre-right. At the same time, Silvio Berlusconi's Forza Italia (Forward Italy) – a *personal* and *business-firm* model of party organisation centred on the economic resources and communicative skills of its leader (Calise 2010; Hopkin & Paolucci 1999) – marked a clear break with the (mass) party model that had characterised the previous decades. However, the so called 'Second Republic' lacked rules and institutions to govern its functioning. The feeling remained of an unfinished transition, to be completed through further institutional revision.

During the two decades that followed, several attempts at reform were made, all aiming, more or less explicitly, to complete the transition to the (so-called) Second Republic. Most of them remained mere proposals or were interrupted well before being completed. The political dynamics and divisions between the parties stood as significant obstacles in the way of their success.

The long history of attempts at reform in Italy has been explored in depth in other publications (see, for example, Baldini 2017). Here it is sufficient to recall some of the most significant milestones:

(1) The 1997 Bicameral Parliamentary Commission for constitutional reform, which ended its work in 1998 without having achieved cross-party agreement on the draft revision of the Constitution;
(2) The Titolo V reform of the Constitution, promoted by the centre-left, which had, as a fundamental aspect, a 'federal' redefinition of the distribution of powers between the state and the regions. The reform was approved by popular referendum in 2001;
(3) The constitutional reform promoted by the centre-right, which would have provided for further advancement along the federal path, according to the principle of

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so-called *devolution*. Among the most significant of the envisaged changes were the abandonment of symmetric bicameralism through the establishment of a *Federal Senate*, the introduction of the constructive vote of no confidence, and a significant strengthening of the Prime Minister's powers. The reform was rejected by popular referendum in 2006.

In the same period, there were important attempts to reform the electoral system, although not always in a manner consistent with the 'majoritarian project' of the early 1990s. It should be noted, first of all, that between 1999 and 2000 two repeal referendums, which proposed the abolition of the 25 per cent proportional quota required by the law then in force,[3] failed to reach a quorum of 50 per cent.[4] In 2005, the centre-right majority launched a new 'mixed' electoral law. Although this law retained the principle of 'governability' by establishing a majority bonus for the winning coalition, it actually increased the degree of proportionality implicit in the electoral system. Moreover, differences in the mechanisms to be used to allocate the majority bonus in the two chambers reduced the likelihood of a clear and coherent majority emerging in both following a general election. Such a situation occurred twice: once after the 2006 general election and then, even more strikingly, after the 2013 general election.

This election, in particular, marked a crucial moment in the history of Italian politics: a turning point, indeed, which established the parameters within which the events leading up to the referendum were to unfold. As a result of the election, the Italian party system assumed a tri-polar format, which significantly undermined the process of majority formation in parliament. Alongside the PD, with 25.5 per cent of the vote, and PDL (Popolo della Libertà – The People of Freedom)[5] with 21.3 per cent was a new political force: Beppe Grillo's M5S (Movimento 5 Stelle - Five Star Movement) (Bordignon & Ceccarini 2013, 2016), which made a parliamentary breakthrough, winning 25.1 per cent of the votes. The M5S chose an *isolationist* strategy and remained unwilling to ally with other parties in Parliament, which was now divided into 'three large minorities' (Diamanti 2013). After several weeks of uncertainty and political stalemate, the only way out was the formation of a (new) *grand coalition* government, led by Enrico Letta of the PD.[6]The Letta government, however, was to have a rather limited duration. Already in the autumn of 2013 the broad-based executive began to lose important components. Ministers from FI (Forza Italia – Forward Italy) resigned after a vote which forced Berlusconi, as a result of legal problems, to forfeit his role as a Senator.[7] A PDL component led by the then interior minister, Angelino Alfano, refused to join the new Forza Italia, re-founded by Berlusconi, and continued to support the government, giving itself the name NCD (Nuovo Centrodestra – New centre-right).

With a reduced majority, Letta continued to govern for a few months more, but eventually resigned as prime minister in February 2014, a year after the general election. It was the Assembly of the PD – Letta's own party – supporting a proposal from the new party secretary, Matteo Renzi, who called on the prime minister to step down. The former mayor of Florence, Renzi had won the primaries for the PD leadership with 68 per cent of the votes in December 2013. Renzi's rapid rise, characterised by his frontal attack on the old party élites in the name of a generational turnover, had already produced a sharp division inside the party and the broader centre-left space. Many members of the PD 'old guard' saw the new secretary as an infiltrator from the right – a sort of new Berlusconi – given his leadership style and his inclination to look 'beyond' left and right (Bordignon 2014).

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Renzi saw Letta as a potential competitor as leader of the centre-left and thought he could not control the workings of government from his party office, thus risking losing his momentum. Hence, he soon called for a new phase in Italian politics and an acceleration in the reform process, proposing himself as new prime minister. Within a few (tumultuous) days, Letta resigned and the new Renzi government won a vote of confidence in parliament.

The two pillars of the Renzi-Boschi reform

It was at the end of this turbulent period, in the midst of the political deadlock and ungovernability following the 2013 general election, that the reform project analysed in this article was introduced.

A first attempt at revising the constitution (and the electoral system) was launched by Enrico Letta's government (2013), on the initiative of Giorgio Napolitano, the President of the Republic. A commission for constitutional reform was formed, and a constitutional law for the formation of a Bicameral Commission was proposed. Within a few months, however, Matteo Renzi (soon to become the new Prime Minister) took charge of carrying forward a new reformist project.

Renzi's reform proposals were based essentially on two pillars: (1) a constitutional amendment that bore the names of Maria Elena Boschi, Minister for Reform in the Renzi government, and the prime minister himself, thus emphasising that it was a government initiative, and (2) a new electoral law for the Chamber of Deputies, the so-called *Italicum*.

The Renzi-Boschi Reform, approved by Parliament in April 2016 and presented to citizens in the referendum of 4 December 2016, was a complex text amending 47 articles of the second part of the Italian Constitution, dedicated to the institutional architecture of the Republic. Three main (intertwined) themes could be identified in it, themes which had elements of both continuity and rupture with respect to the trends that had emerged in the early 1990s.[8]

(1) The first theme concerned reorganisation of the territorial structure of the state, through the elimination of the Provinces (often identified as expensive and useless bodies) and a redefinition of the division of powers between local and central institutions, in favour of the latter. The reform, in fact, would have involved a considerable rebalancing of power in favour of the central state, proposing, in particular, the principle of 'state supremacy', which would have allowed the state to intervene in matters of regional jurisdiction when a higher national interest was deemed to be at stake. For this reason, critics of the proposed reform described it as a kind of recentralisation project that would have marked a clear U-turn with respect to the federalist ideals that had accompanied the birth of the Second Republic.

(2) The second theme concerned the abolition of symmetric bicameralism. This was a measure that had been desired by many for several decades, as it was thought necessary in order to get rid of the Italian anomaly of two chambers having the same legislative powers. The current state of affairs, long thought of as one of the main causes of the sluggishness of the Italian legislative process, requires that every bill be discussed and then approved by both the Chamber of Deputies and the Senate without amendment. If any changes are made, the bill must return to the other chamber and be voted on again. At the end of this process, the two chambers of the

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Italian Parliament must approve the bill by voting in favour of identically worded texts. The proposed reform was aimed at streamlining the legislative process by means of a differentiation of the functions of the two chambers. This was to be achieved through the transformation of the Senate into a chamber representing local and regional government institutions, with reduced powers and fewer members (100 rather than 315).

(3) The third theme concerned the relationship between the executive and the legislature. The reform envisaged that the government would need the confidence of the lower house alone – the Chamber of Deputies – where, through streamlined legislative procedures, government-proposed initiatives could be considered within the framework of a 'fast track' process, with an obligation on Parliament to give its approval within 70 days. The aim of the reform was therefore to strengthen the executive, leading to a new balance of power in executive-legislature relations within Parliament.

These three themes are closely related to the second 'leg' of the government's proposed project: the new electoral law, the so-called *Italicum*. The issue of electoral-law reform returned to the centre of the debate after a Constitutional Court ruling at the end of 2013 declared some parts of the electoral law of 2005 unconstitutional – as a result generating a purely proportional system for both chambers. The *Italicum*, approved in 2015 and entering into force for the Chamber of Deputies in July 2016, was a proportional electoral law with a majority bonus for the winning party. In order to be awarded the bonus, the first-placed party needed to exceed 40 per cent of the vote in the first round of voting, or to prevail in the run-off between the top two parties. It was, therefore, a majority-assuring electoral law (D'Alimonte 2016) which, in the intentions of the committee proposing it, would have allowed citizens to know the winner as soon as the election was over. This is rather a popular issue, given the traditional instability of Italian governments and, more recently, the uncertain outcome of the 2013 general election, mentioned above.

The hard-won agreement between the political forces, however, required that the *Italicum* be applied only to the Chamber of Deputies, in expectation of a transition to the 'new Senate' envisaged by the constitutional reform. This particular characteristic underlines the close intertwining of the two distinct projects, but also the risk of inconsistency in the electoral law between the two chambers if the referendum failed: a situation that in effect came about in the aftermath of 4 December 2016.

Taken together, the new electoral law and the constitutional reform would have triggered a decisive step towards the presidentialisation of the system. The institutional change generated by the reform might therefore have been seen as the continuation (and partial institutionalisation) of the shift towards a majoritarian and basically presidential democracy, initiated in the 1990s with the birth of the Second Republic.

Why and why not? The narratives around the reform

The referendum debate was highly polarised, characterised by diametrically opposing views on the merits and demerits of the proposed reform. In many respects, it recalled the traditional trade-off between *representation* and *governability*.

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The promoters and supporters of the reform saw the government-backed project as an unrepeatable opportunity, after so many failed attempts, to steer the country towards a working, decision-making democracy, finally bringing an end to the broadly defined *endless Italian transition* (Ceccanti 2016; Crainz & Fusaro 2016). They emphasised the benefits of cheaper, more efficient institutions, achieved through the simplification and streamlining of Italian institutional procedures; a reduction in the number of MPs and hence in the cost of politics; and the abolition of 'useless bodies' such as the provinces[9] or the National Council of Economy and Labour (CNEL). They stressed that the reform would produce a democracy able not only to *represent* but also to *decide*. The transition towards an unblocked, 'deciding' democracy would be assisted by the streamlining of the legislative process, guaranteed first of all by the movement away from symmetric bicameralism that currently sees bills being sent back and forth between the two chambers in a sort of 'ping-pong' match.

The narrative of the Yes camp stressed the idea of returning to citizens the right to choose their government directly, thus avoiding party bargaining in Parliament. Supporters of the constitutional reform claimed that it would produce a 'clear winner' immediately after the election. They also denied, at the same time, the 'connection' between the reform and the new electoral law, claiming that the reform would not change the (formal) powers of the executive (and its leader). Renzi and the Yes camp tried to 'sell' the dream of a more efficient and more accountable government: the dream of a country able not only to keep up with other European democracies, but also to become a leading force in Europe.

The opponents of Renzi's project put forward an array of different arguments. Many of them spoke of a hasty and botched reform. They pointed the finger at its internal inconsistencies, the complexity of the legislative process defined by it, and the institutional conflicts that would, in their opinion, result from it. A central point made by opponents of the reform was the risk of a reduced level of political accountability, owing to a centralisation of powers and especially, the transition to a non-directly-elected Senate. This was a highly controversial point during parliamentary discussion of the reform, and even after its final approval by the two chambers. The final text of the reform envisaged that 95 senators out of 100[10] – consisting of 74 members belonging to the regional legislative councils and 21 mayors of major Italian cities – would be elected by each regional council 'in conformity with the choices made by the voters' and 'in accordance with the votes and composition of each council' (Pasquino & Capussela 2016). It was an ambivalent and vague provision, which left to a subsequent law the task of defining how the senators would in fact be 'elected' (Zagrebelsky & Pallante 2016).

Public arguments in favour of the No vote focused, in particular, on the excessive powers the government and its head would allegedly acquire if the reform was approved. The No camp described the reform as an attack on the democratic principles embodied in the Constitution of 1948, an attack which would weaken the role of Parliament as guarantor of the democratic process. They argued that the combination of the constitutional reform and the new electoral law would minimise the role of both political minorities and opposition. For all these reasons, according to many of its opponents, the reform was not only 'bad' but even 'dangerous', entailing the risk of authoritarian developments.

Finally, the points regarding criticism of the 'method' chosen by Renzi and his party to secure passage of the reforms must be taken into consideration. Opponents of the reforms argued that there was a lack of agreement or discussion about how the basic rules of Italian democracy were to be rewritten, and that Parliament's standing orders had been manipulated

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by a narrow parliamentary majority to force through the approval of the constitutional law. They also condemned the *politicisation* and *personalisation* of the entire process, maintaining that the Constitution was being rewritten according to the contingent interests of just one political party and its leader. This line of reasoning was reinforced by the gradual redefinition of the political configuration of the Yes and No camps, as discussed in the next section.

From a broad coalition for Yes to 'All against Renzi'

During the course of the long campaign, the alliances and the meaning of the referendum itself changed considerably. The consultation ended up assuming great political significance going far beyond the substance of the reform project itself. At the heart of the political dispute there was Matteo Renzi and the communication strategy he employed in managing this important political event.

After the exit of FI from the *grand coalition* government, the newly elected PD Secretary, even before he became prime minister, reached a *bipartisan* agreement about the institutional reforms with Silvio Berlusconi, the leader of FI. Signed in January 2014, the *Nazarene Pact*[11] enabled the formation of a large parliamentary bloc supporting the reforms, which ensured the progress of both the constitutional reform and the electoral law.

The Renzi-Berlusconi axis broke in February 2015, at the time of the election of the President of the Republic, when Renzi unilaterally decided to put forward Sergio Mattarella as the PD's candidate. Forza Italia immediately declared that this was unacceptable, and Berlusconi stated that the Nazarene pact was 'no more'. It is not clear whether their (unwritten and mainly secret) agreement had included a shared decision on the next head-of-state, but, in this crucial step, Renzi lost the support of a strategic ally in pursuit of the reforms.

The collapse of the bipartisan agreement would cast a shadow over the future of the reform process. Maintenance of the agreement with Berlusconi would, indeed, have assured Renzi the support of FI along the way, both in Parliament and in the popular vote, and revision of the Constitution would not have been perceived as a 'biased' reform, tailor-made for one political party. The end of the *Nazarene Pact* narrowed the scope of political support for the reform, and this affected the balance of power between (and the levels of mobilisation of) those who were for and against it. The window of opportunity opened by the 2013 crisis had thus firmly closed.

Rallying around No

The end of the Nazarene Pact led to a typical situation in the logic of conflict (Coser 1956) – namely, the strengthening of an (in this case politically heterogeneous) alliance against a common enemy: Renzi. The reform plan was opposed by a range of actors with contrasting histories, motivations, and identities, who nevertheless found themselves on the same side. In this respect, Forza Italia was only the final (although perhaps decisive) component of a large 'No coalition' composed of the entire parliamentary opposition. Above all, Renzi's project was opposed from the beginning by the largest opposition party – the M5S – but also by the parties of the radical right, such as Matteo Salvini's Lega Nord (Northern League) and Giorgia Meloni's FdI (Fratelli d'Italia - Brothers of Italy). The radical left parties also stood against the reforms from the outset. All these parties adopted the arguments presented in

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the previous section, combining them, more or less explicitly, with statements of their intention to stop not only Renzi's reform project, but also his political career.

Even within the PD itself, various divisions opened up during the referendum campaign. A significant minority of the party, after drawn-out internal discussions and bargaining, joined the No camp. It should also be remembered that during the six parliamentary votes on the constitutional reform, the majority of PD MPs voted in favour of the constitutional reform project: 94.4 per cent on average (Pritoni & Valbruzzi 2017, p. 50). However, once the law amending the Constitution had been approved and was awaiting confirmation by popular referendum, the divisions intensified. Some of Renzi's internal opponents – including former party secretary Pier Luigi Bersani and former prime minister Massimo D'Alema – began to raise objections, and did so concerning two aspects in particular: (1) the *principles* relating to the content of the reform, and (2) the *method* adopted by Renzi for the management of the entire referendum operation. In the first respect, the discussion was stimulated by the democratic fears surrounding the centralisation of powers at the highest level of the executive, owing to a combination of the constitutional reform and the *Italicum* electoral law; In the case of the second issue, the divisive element was, besides management of the referendum itself, the strong personalisation imprinted upon the campaign.

The downfall of Yes

The Yes front, by contrast, was essentially linked to the PD (the Renzian majority) and its 'centrist' junior partners in Parliament: Alfano's NCD and other minor parties. The official campaign, 'A Yes is enough', hired as consultant Jim Messina, former campaign manager to Barack Obama in 2012 and to David Cameron in the Scottish independence referendum of 2014. It was organised through the 'permanent mobilisation' engineered by several committees, once again marked by widely differing political cultures, as reflected by their names: *Left for Yes*, *Moderates and Centrists Together for Yes*, *Centrists for Yes*, *Liberals and Reformists for Yes* (*LiberiSi*), and intellectual groups such as *Together We Change* (*Insieme si cambia*).

But it was Renzi himself who personalised the vote, identifying a 'yes' to the reform with support for his premiership. In the initial phase of the public debate, long before the constitutional reform was approved in Parliament, Renzi repeated on TV talk shows and in interviews: 'If I lose, I shall go away immediately and you won't see me anymore' and 'Either I change Italy or I change jobs'. In this phase, Renzi's leadership was very strong and further reinforced by the unprecedented 40.8 per cent of the votes the PD got at the European Parliament elections of 2014. Nevertheless, he had risen to the premiership not through a general election victory, but through party bargaining and parliamentary manoeuvres. This development clearly conflicted with Renzi's own (anti-political) narrative, since he had always stated he would have never become prime minister without a direct electoral mandate. For these reasons, his communication strategy in relation to the referendum reflected an attempt to expunge the 'original sin' of his governmental leadership. However, support for Renzi and his party declined during the long electoral campaign, while popular support for the reform steadily came to coincide with Renzi's 'personal constituency'.

The personalisation of the referendum (and the consequent personalisation of the reform) became a central issue of the whole campaign, and was used against Renzi by his opponents. For this reason, during the months preceding the referendum, when the prospect of a

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pro-Renzi plebiscite was made doubtful by the progressive decline in support for the Yes camp, the Florentine leader tried to change a pivotal component of his communication strategy. He stopped talking about his potential resignation and political future. But it was too late. Perhaps personalisation of the referendum campaign was unavoidable given the strong personal footprint on the whole project and on his leadership style in general. But this process facilitated the emergence of an internal fault line within the centre-left, in addition to the cleavage between Renzi's 'government of reforms' and the heterogeneous opposition. The referendum's opponents were united only by the common goal – to stop the reform – and by the common enemy – Renzi himself.

Ultimately, criticisms of the personal use of the referendum, aimed at strengthening the leadership, along with arguments about the potentially authoritarian implications of the reforms, gave rise to divisions that ended up determining the outcome of the vote.

In short, what the PD leader had intended to be not merely an institutional reform but also a kind of personal plebiscite turned into something quite different. The referendum was gradually transformed from a 'constitutional' into a 'personal' poll. The vote came to be viewed as a political test for Renzi himself, as well as a vote of confidence in his government.

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Widespread mobilisation and the PD internal divide

In addition to the main political actors, numerous Yes and No committees sprang up all over the country, each of which mobilised thousands of activists and several celebrities from the world of entertainment and elsewhere. Nineteen committees were set up for the No campaign, composed of various civil society associations, several prominent academics, and a range of other public and political figures (Vampa & Vignati 2017). The various committees structured the campaign at the grassroots level, organising meetings and debates in many towns, fostering door-to-door activism and engaging thousands of activists. Both fronts gathered signatures from public personalities and intellectuals in support of manifestos and appeals on referendum issues.

The debate was enriched not only by discussions between representatives of the Yes and No camps on TV talk shows, but also by unprecedented publishing coverage. A dozen books were published in the months leading up to the vote: some in support of Yes, others in favour of No, and still others which did not express a view either way, but which tried, in a more detached and informative way, to evaluate the pros and cons of the proposed reform. These books, generally written by academics or experts in juridical and institutional issues, adopted a language, style and publishing formula suited to reaching a large audience of citizens, voters, activists and opinion leaders.

In particular, the clash within the centre-left meant the Yes front found itself on the opposite side to important left-wing associations: organisations linked to the PD or related to the progressive political culture. Among the significant left-wing opposition it is sufficient to recall: (1) the position in favour of No assumed by the ANPI (Associazione Nazionale Partigiani d'Italia - National Association of Italian Partisans), made up of members of the Italian resistance against Nazi and Fascist occupation and considered the *fathers* of a republican Italy founded on the basis of a democratic Constitution, along with subsequent generations who identify with those values; and (2) the conflict, which had already arisen regarding labour market reform, between Renzi and the CGIL (Confederazione Generale

Italiana del Lavoro - Italian General Confederation of Labour), the main Italian trade union federation and expression of the left-wing political tradition.

Voting patterns: their evolution and the reasons behind them

In the wake of every popular vote there are many questions regarding the reasons for the result and the motivations of the voters – all the more so after a crucial political event charged with multiple meanings, as the 2016 constitutional referendum undoubtedly was. The social profile of the voters has become one of the key elements in interpreting the referendum's outcome: the focus of the post-referendum debate has been not only on the political identity of those who went to the polls, but also on the socio-demographic features of the different electorates.

According to survey data collected in the months preceding the vote,[12] presented in Table 2, the No camp attracted, in particular, voters from 25 to 54 years old, but also those with a high level of education. Considering the socio-economic characteristics of voters, white-collar, manual workers, and the self-employed, as well as housewives and the unemployed, voted No to an above-average extent.[13] Older people (65 years and over) and retired citizens were the only social categories in which a majority of voters supported the reform.

The five surveys conducted between the months of February and November 2016 enable a deeper analysis of the profiles of the Yes and No electorates and their evolution over time. This makes it possible to outline the evolving environment surrounding the voting choice, and to seek to understand the key reasons that guided the preferences expressed at the ballot box. Analysing the data collected during the ten months preceding the referendum, presented in Figure 1, three different phases seem to emerge in the distribution of voting intentions.

Table 2. Social characteristics of Yes and No voters based on pre-referendum opinion polls.

	Yes	No
All	40	60
Gender		
Men	38	62
Women	42	58
Age group (years)		
18–24	43	57
25–34	28	72
35–44	32	68
45–54	33	67
55–64	44	56
65 and over	56	44
Educational level:		
Medium-low	44	56
High	36	64
Socio-professional category:		
Worker	34	66
Employee/teacher/technical/official	38	62
Self-employed/entrepreneur	24	76
Freelance professional	38	62
Student	42	58
Housewife	32	68
Unemployed	28	72
Retired	55	45

Source: LaPolis Electoral Observatory, University of Urbino: Demos & Pi Political Atlas data.
Note: The table considers the combined data from two surveys (October, November), a total of about 2,400 cases. Data were also weighted based on the actual results of the constitutional referendum (excluding the votes cast by Italians living abroad).

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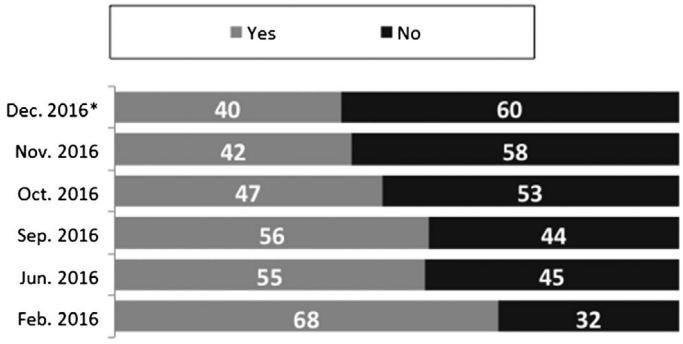

Figure 1. Constitutional referendum: the evolution of voting intentions. *In the coming months there will be a constitutional referendum on Senate reform and other points of the Constitution. You think you will vote... (percentages, excluding uncertain or reticent respondents)*. Source: LaPolis Electoral Observatory, University of Urbino: Demos & Pi Political Atlas data.

Note: The uncertain/reticent percentages for each survey are: 26% in February 2016; 33% in June 2016; 30% in September 2016; 26% in October 2016; 25% in November 2016. *The figure for December 2016 shows the results of the national referendum.

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The first regards the starting phase of the long referendum campaign. The No voters, at that time, appeared to be a minority. Among those who, at the beginning of 2016, were already clear about their voting choices, only one in three people (32 per cent) was inclined to reject the constitutional reform.

By June, the No vote had already risen by 12–13 points in comparison to the distribution apparent at the beginning of the year, reaching 44–45 per cent. This value would remain quite stable during the intermediate stage of the campaign, at least until September, before then resuming its upward trend in the autumn.

Finally, in the concluding phase, when the campaigns went into full swing, the No camp became the majority. In October, in fact, 53 per cent of the public was opposed to the reform. The No camp then reached 58 per cent in November, and two weeks later rose to 60 per cent in the final result.

During the opening phase of the campaign, there was a very spontaneous orientation in favour of the reform. In fact, some parts of it – such as the reduction in the number of MPs, or the abolition of 'useless bodies' – were in tune with a widespread anti-political sentiment. However, during the campaign the climate dramatically shifted, as the 'coalition' opposing the reform gradually took shape and the vote came to be perceived as a referendum on Renzi. 'All against Renzi' was the final result, leading to a resounding defeat of the prime minister.

The political profile of the voters

Before evaluating the other electorates, that of the PD should be considered first. To what extent did the base of the main ruling party subscribe to the view expressed by Renzi, secretary of the Democrats and government leader? The component loyal to the party leadership was always high, from the beginning to the end of the referendum campaign. As Figure 2 shows, it was 85 per cent in February and stabilised around 90 per cent in the final stage of the campaign, remaining fairly constant throughout the whole period.

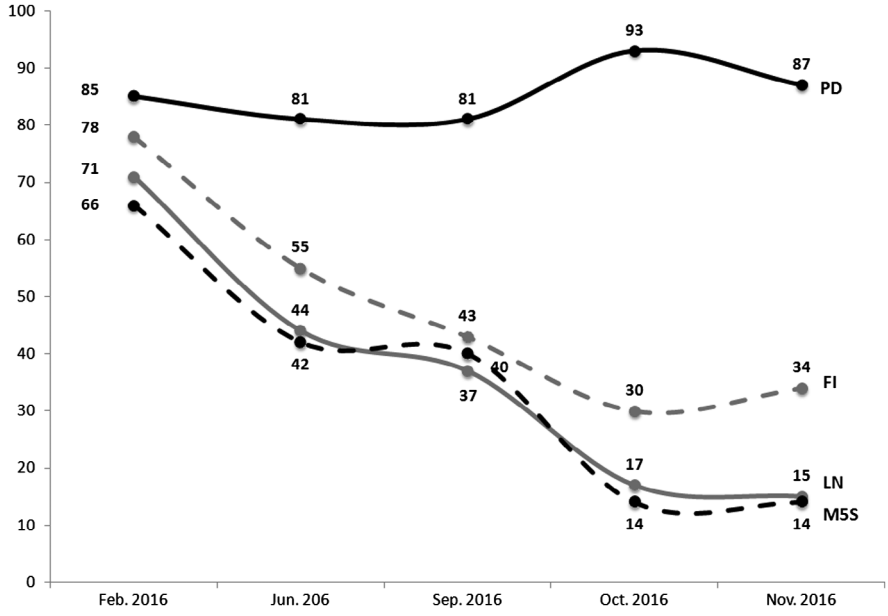

Figure 2. The evolution of voting intentions in favour of Yes among voters of the four main parties *(percentages, among voters of the parties considered, of respondents who responded Yes, excluding uncertain or reticent respondents)*. Source: LaPolis Electoral Observatory, University of Urbino, Demos & Pi Political Atlas data.

This contrasts with the trend observed among the other parties. Interesting and similar trends, albeit with some peculiarities, concerned the three major parties that adhered to the No front: FI, LN, and M5S. The majority of their base was, in the initial stage of the referendum campaign, geared towards voting Yes, but, as time passed, their support for the reforms came to shrink dramatically.

Supporters of FI, in nearly eight out of ten cases (78 per cent), declared themselves in favour of Yes in February, but their support more than halved (34 per cent) as the campaign progressed. The same trend was recorded in the case of the Lega Nord. Whereas at the beginning of the campaign 71 per cent intended to vote in favour of the Renzi-Boschi reform, in the immediate run-up to the referendum support had dropped to 15 per cent, thus shrinking nearly fivefold. Similar dynamics were observed for the M5S. Initially the support for the reform was widespread among the party's electoral base: in this case a little less marked, but still high at 66 per cent. This support then shrank significantly by the eve of the vote, falling to 14 per cent.

These data confirm the role played by the parties, and the relevance of their positions during the campaign, in determining the referendum outcome. Political polarisation and divisions among party leaders fostered the grassroots activism of the Yes and No front committees, reinforcing opposite views regarding the reform. We will now consider the different meanings attributed to the substance of the referendum from the perspective of public opinion.

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Fears and criticisms

Interviewees were asked for their positions concerning the main interpretations of the reform, which had become propaganda arguments in the communicative rhetoric of the Yes and No committees. Did they see the reform as an opportunity to improve the working of the democratic system? Or did they, on the contrary, see Renzi's project as a threat to democracy?

These antithetical representations of the significance of the referendum had been embraced in different ways, but in a predictable and consistent manner, among supporters of the Yes and No camps. The data presented in Figure 3 display, in fact, a clear divide in voters' views. Those in favour of the revision of the Constitution, in an overwhelming 88 per cent of cases, thought the reform would improve the functioning of Italian democracy. Also on the No front there was some openness to this idea, in 20 per cent of the cases; but overall the view of No supporters appeared to be the mirror image of that expressed by supporters of the other camp. In two out of three cases (66 per cent), in fact, the reform was considered a danger to the democratic checks and balances of the political system.

The views outlined above reflect a significant degree of polarisation of the two electorates with regard to the meanings attributed to the referendum. If one considers the positions expressed by 'Italy for a Yes Vote' and 'Italy for a No Vote', on the efficiency/danger trade-off for democracy, it must be said that the most 'intransigent' orientation is observed among the former group. Supporters of the reform appeared, indeed, more rigid in holding the referendum to be an opportunity to improve governing procedures. The No voters, on the other hand, in addition to recognising a danger in the reform, also displayed a certain openness to the idea of the positive effects it might have on 'governability', albeit insufficient to induce them to express themselves in favour of it at the ballot box.

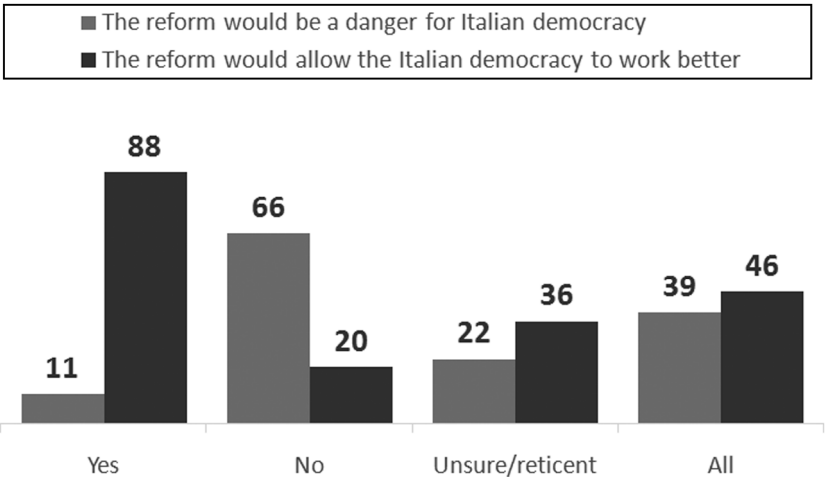

Figure 3. Opinions concerning the effects of the reform by voting intention. *How much would you agree with each of the following opinions on the constitutional reform? (Percentage of those who consider themselves very much or somewhat in agreement).* Source: LaPolis Electoral Observatory, University of Urbino, Demos & Pi Political Atlas data.
Note: Cumulative data from two surveys are considered in this summary (October and November 2016), a total of 2,400 cases.

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The other crucial dimension of the referendum concerns the theme of personalisation, which had long been at the centre of the debate and of the referendum campaign itself. What is quite evident, in the data collected by the *LaPolis - Demos Electoral Observatory*, is that the 'personal factor' counted in voters' choices. As shown in Figure 4, this was ascertained through the use of projective techniques: voters were not asked what criteria they themselves would use in reaching their voting decisions, but about those which, in their opinion, would prevail in the choices of Italians generally. About six out of ten people, without any particular distinction in voting orientation, believed that voters would express themselves above all either in favour of or against Renzi and his government.[14]

Moreover, according to a post-referendum survey carried out by Demos & Pi,[15] 85 per cent of Italians showed a broad openness to the prospect of changing the constitution. In interviews conducted two weeks after the referendum, 79 per cent of the interviewees who reported having voted No nevertheless agreed with the idea of modifying the constitution to make the system more efficient.

To summarise, although the vote concerned the constitution, the data confirm that it was Renzi himself who, thanks to his campaign strategy, helped turn the vote into a personal referendum. Hence, many voters who might have been attracted (and were initially attracted) by some (popular, if not populist) elements of the reform finally chose to follow the indications of their preferred parties. In this way, they reaffirmed their own political identities and, at the same time, had the opportunity to strengthen the tide of growing dissatisfaction with Renzi and his government.

For these reasons, the kind of consultation that the referendum most closely approached was perhaps a sort of *recall election*, a well-known voting procedure used, in political systems other than the Italian one, to 'send a politician back home'. It is a way of revoking the mandate of an elected official. The referendum therefore assumed a precise political meaning in the view of citizens, not only in public debate.

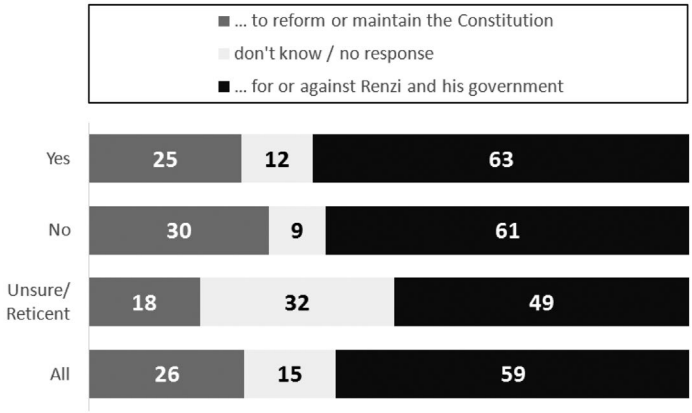

Figure 4. Opinions on the meaning of the referendum vote by voting intention. *In your opinion, the Italians who go to vote in the referendum will vote above all ... (percentages).* Source: Electoral Observatory LaPolis, University of Urbino, Demos & Pi Political Atlas data.
Note: In this summary are considered the combined data from two surveys (October, November), for a total of 2,400 cases.

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The post-referendum dynamics

Two main points were strictly connected to the referendum outcome. The first concerned the personal fate of Matteo Renzi in both cases, i.e. whether he had won or whether he had lost. The second was related to the consequences for the institutional system.

'If No wins, nothing changes' was the slogan used by the campaign committee in favour of Yes. In the intentions of the promoters, such a message served to underline how a failure of the referendum would leave the country hostage to the inefficiencies of the existing institutional system. However, rejection of the reform has not simply left the status quo unchanged, and may yet have a profound effect on the political system.

On the other side, some of the immediate repercussions of the referendum result, particularly concerning the fate of the government and legislature, were, to a large extent, already predictable before the vote. Much weakened by the defeat in his 'personal referendum', Renzi announced his intention to resign as soon as the outcome was clear on election night: 'I am different. I lost and I say it out loud […] I wanted to cut too many political jobs […] I didn't make it so I'm the one who is getting fired'. Three days later he officially stepped down as prime minister, paving the way for the formation of a new government led by his former foreign minister, Paolo Gentiloni.

However, Renzi did not 'change jobs', and initially remained the official head of the PD, preparing the terrain for his comeback. After a few months out of the political scene, Renzi returned to fuel the party's internal debate. In February 2017, he resigned as party secretary and then asked for (and obtained) a new congress, in which he put himself forward as a candidate for the party leadership. On 30 April, he won the party open primaries with a landslide 69.2 per cent, being reconfirmed as PD secretary. The strong setback suffered after the referendum and his crisis of popularity seemed not to have stopped Renzi's career.

Even more profound, however, are the possible long-term consequences of the referendum outcome. In a sense, it is possible to say that Italians found themselves, on 4 December 2016, at a sort of crossroads with regard to the evolution of the political system. One road – that of a Yes victory – would have led to a consolidation of the majoritarian and presidential project begun in the early 1990s. The other, implied by the rejection of the reform, would seem to lead to a diametrically opposite path. In some ways, the Third Republic in the form initiated by the referendum outcome could take on similar characteristics to those of the First Republic. At least three (inter-related) elements suggest this interpretation.

(1) *Return to a proportional logic*. A few weeks after the referendum, on 24 January 2017, a new ruling by the Constitutional Court[16] – after the above-mentioned ruling regarding the 2005 electoral law – deprived *Italicum* of its main majoritarian component: the majority-assuring run-off between the two leading parties after the first round of elections. The majority bonus was confirmed, but only for a party able to surpass the 40 per cent threshold. Such an objective appears difficult to achieve, however, given the distribution of support among the parties according to opinion polls conducted at the beginning of 2017. Moreover, the majority bonus applies only to the Chamber of Deputies and not to the Senate, which remains crucial for the formation of a governing majority within a symmetrically bicameral system. The Italian electoral system, in the absence of further action by Parliament, therefore seems destined to function (in most cases) according to the substantially proportional mechanics designed by the Constitutional Court.

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(2) *Political fragmentation*. The likely transition to proportionality not only discouraged party mergers and pre-electoral alliances, but also triggered a further fragmentation of the political market, clearly visible in the behaviour of the political actors in the aftermath of the referendum. Following Renzi's defeat, in the PD the growing discontent of the internal minority led to the birth, in February 2017, of a new left-wing splinter-party named MDP (Articolo 1- Movimento Democratico e Progressista - Article 1 - Democratic and Progressive Movement), founded by PD dissenters and by some of the party's founding fathers. While the two traditional blocs of the Second Republic were increasingly divided and highly contentious[17], the 'third pole' of the Italian tri-polar system, the M5S, continued to enjoy growing electoral support, challenging the PD for the role of leading party.

(3) *Political instability*. In a fragmented, substantially tri-polar party system, regulated by proportional electoral rules, the idea of a majority, a government and a Prime Minister chosen (directly) by the electorate must essentially be abandoned. The Italian political system seems to have returned to its old parliamentary roots, restoring to the parties the tasks of forming and maintaining alliances in the aftermath of the vote. The process of forming a majority and a government could be highly complex, paving the way to a new period of government instability or even to a situation of political and institutional stalemate. In other words, the 'government epidemic' that has characterised South European political systems in recent times (Bosco & Verney 2016) – made up of uncertain electoral results, complex puzzles of government formation, and repeated elections – could assume a particularly acute form in Italy.

In such a situation, the only viable outcome of the next general election would be the revival of a new, *large, centrist coalition*. The big losers of the referendum battle, Renzi and/or the PD, might even present themselves as the cornerstone of this alliance. In this vein, the return to a new form of *polarised pluralism* has been hypothesised, with the PD in the role of a pro-system centre, facing two anti-system (and populist) oppositions – the M5S and the Northern League (Ventura 2016).

Already during the most successful phases of Renzism, some observers assumed that the PD could play a (hegemonic) role similar to that played in the First Republic by the Christian Democrats. At the same time, this picture seems to have been complicated by the crisis of the 'Renzi experiment' and the growing support for the 'populist area'.

Conclusions: towards 'which' Republic?

With the outcome of the referendum of December 2016 and the Constitutional Court's ruling of January 2017, both pillars of the Renzian reform were dismantled. The path of the reform project and the survey data presented in this article clearly show that, once again, an attempt to redesign the Italian institutional framework has failed. This failure has been due not only to political conflicts between the PD and other parties, but also to internal divisions within the PD itself. As seems to have also happened recently in other European countries – e.g. in the United Kingdom with the 2016 Brexit referendum, or in Denmark with the 2015 EU opt-out referendum – citizens used direct democracy (also) to vote against the government of the day, expressing their discontent with political elites. In this case, Renzi's attempt to strengthen his leadership using the referendum as a personal plebiscite backfired. The end

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of the *Nazarene pact* with Berlusconi narrowed the scope of support for the reform, making it being perceived as a 'biased' reform. Also, the personal cleavage regarding the prime minister ended up being a crucial factor explaining the referendum results. Despite his defeat, Renzi is still the leader of the PD, maybe stronger than before inside the party, and he will try to become the next prime minister. But his political fate remains uncertain.

Far from completing the long Italian transition, the implosion of Renzi's project could even generate an opposing tendency with respect to the trends that emerged in the early 1990s and the objectives envisioned by its promoters: a sort of *unintended consequence*. The majoritarian (and implicitly presidential) democracy that had emerged during the Second Republic appears today to be giving way to the proportional-consensual logic that characterised the First Republic. The Third Republic envisioned by Renzi – oriented towards speed, governability, and decision-making – instead seems to be consigning to slow processes of interparty negotiation the tasks of building a parliamentary majority and a government, and of formulating a political agenda. Italian representative democracy thus seems to have decisively reassumed its parliamentary and party-centred character after twenty years in which it seemed to be gradually moving away from such a model.

This kind of trend, however, could generate new tensions within the Italian political system, and may encourage further anti-system tendencies, given the anti-political climate spreading throughout Italy and beyond. It is possible to identify at least two reasons to support this idea.

Firstly, the model of the First Republic 'worked' for a long time because it was based on a 'certain type of society', a 'certain type of voter' and a 'certain type of party'. The twentieth century society, with the deep cleavages that ran through it, is now long gone. For this reason, the model of the First Republic fell into decline and then collapsed at the beginning of the 1990s, together with the mass parties that had characterised the preceding decades. The mediatisation and the personalisation of politics – which occurred late in Italy, but even more strongly than in other countries (Musella 2015), owing to the presence of a political character like Berlusconi – have not brought politics and society closer together. Nevertheless, the logic of disintermediated politics has, in many ways, been 'internalised' by citizens and political actors alike. The idea is now widespread that citizens can choose not only their representatives but also, directly, their government and even their own prime minister (something which was not the case in preceding decades owing to the fragmentation of the party system and the need for post-election coalition-building). Meanwhile, trust in political parties is now very low (six per cent) and nearly one out of two Italians believes that 'democracy can function without political parties'.[18] In a situation like this, it is difficult to imagine a new *party democracy* (Manin 1997). A reproduction of the First Republic, with its mediation and its compromises, can hardly close the gap that has opened up between citizens, politics, and institutions.

Secondly, on the basis of such a rift, populist actors have gained both popularity and electoral support in recent years. In Italy and elsewhere they have built their fortunes on the contradictions of representative democracy, denouncing its oligarchic tendencies and its gradual distancing from the idea of government 'by the people'. The M5S has gone so far as to imagine the replacement of representative democracy with a kind of web-based direct democracy. The global economic downturn has exacerbated the crisis of (post)modern democracies, giving citizens many 'good argument' to support the emergence of leaders and protest movements of different natures and political backgrounds. Faced with the

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challenge of these new actors, the traditional parties can follow two possible routes. They can choose to represent, in some way, the issues and the reasons behind the success of the populist wave, with the risk of becoming bad copies of the originals. Or they can choose to adopt a defensive posture, stubbornly defending the status quo, with the risk of losing the scarce yet vital resource that is political legitimacy.

Renzi's political stances and proposed reforms have sometimes been defined by pundits as expressions of a 'light' or 'constructive' populism. For a few months, he was able to tame the Italian populist wave, converting it into fuel for his government and his reformist plan. Thereafter, return to a proportional logic has seemed to suggest a move in the opposite direction: the possible formation of a moderate centrist pact among the major parties of the Second Republic, in order to keep the 'populist threat' outside the walls of the *polis*.

This would be a further sign of a return to the past: a new anti-populist edition of the *conventio ad excludendum* which, at the time of the First Republic, pushed the anti-system forces (fascist and communist) to the margins of the system, far from the levers of government. Such a return might work, but it might also provide the setting for hard, anti-system populism to grow even stronger. This would be a further *perverse effect* generated by the volatile Italian laboratory.

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Notes

1. Participation in 2016 was not only higher than in the previous constitutional referendums but it was also quite close to that of the latest general election (2013) when turnout was 75.2 per cent.
2. In those years, there were two important referendums which partially changed the existing legislation concerning electoral law. The first referendum reduced the number of preference votes available to the voter to one only. The second referendum altered the electoral law for the Senate, generating a purely majoritarian electoral system. Following these referendums, Parliament approved a new electoral law which provided for 75 per cent of the seats to be distributed in accordance with the single-member simple plurality system and the remaining 25 per cent proportionally.
3. See note no. 2.
4. The Italian legal system provides for two types of referendum: *constitutional* referenda and referenda on proposals to *repeal* ordinary legislation (in whole or in part). In order to be valid, votes to repeal ordinary legislation must be based on turnouts of at least fifty per cent. Constitutional referenda, on the other hand, are *confirmatory*. There is no quorum; citizens decide whether to confirm or reject constitutional reforms already approved by Parliament without the qualifying majority of two thirds.
5. Popolo della Libertà – The People of Freedom, led by Silvio Berlusconi, was a centre-right federation of parties (2007-2009) and then a party (2009-2013) born from the merger of Forza Italia, Alleanza Nazionale (National Alliance), and other minor parties.
6. Pier Luigi Bersani, who led the centre-left coalition at the 2013 general elections, had resigned as PD secretary after failing to form a new government. Letta, who had not run as a candidate for prime minister, was charged with the formation of the new government (Fusaro & Kreppel 2014).
7. Convicted of tax-fraud in August 2013, Berlusconi was expelled by the Senate and banned from standing for public office for six years.
8. Other minor themes, not addressed here, concerned the role of the Constitutional Court, the revision of the institutions of direct democracy (referendums and the provisions for popular legislative initiatives), and the elimination of the National Council of Economics and Labour, CNEL (Zagrebelsky & Pallante 2016).
9. In Italy, provinces are sub-regional administrative divisions. In 2014, provinces were transformed into 'second tier institutional bodies', but a constitutional reform is needed to abolish them.

10. The remaining five senators would be chosen by the President of the Republic, based on broadly recognised high merit in serving the nation.
11. The name is derived from the square in which the headquarters of the Democratic Party are located, where the two leaders met to forge the agreement.
12. The analyses proposed here were carried out at the LaPolis (Laboratory of Political and Social Studies) Electoral Observatory, at the University of Urbino Carlo Bo, on data from the Demos & Pi Political Atlas. They are based on five surveys conducted throughout 2016 (February, June, September, October, November) by the opinion poll company Demetra, using a mixed-mode approach (CATI, CAMI, CAWI). For each survey, a national sample of 1,000/1,200 persons is representative of the socio-demographic characteristics and geographical distribution of the Italian population aged 18 years or over (weighted according to socio-demographic variables, educational qualifications, and past voting behaviour).
13. See SPERI blog at Sheffield University, available at: https://speri.dept.shef.ac.uk/2017/03/09/the-italian-constitutional-referendum-the-fears-behind-the-no-vote/
14. Multivariate analysis on the determinants the referendum voting choice, performed on post-electoral survey data, also confirmed the relevance of the 'personal factor' (See Garzia, Bellucci & De Angelis 2017).
15. See the annual report, edited by Demos & Pi, on 'The Italians and the State': https://www.demos.it/2017/pdf/4177itasta2016_20170107.pdf.
16. The Constitutional Court declared that a run-off vote between the two top parties would be unconstitutional in a case where neither of them had reached the 40 per cent threshold, explaining that this mechanism could lead to excessive disproportionality compared with the voting outcome.
17. The main division in the centre-right area regarded its two main parties (and former political allies): Berlusconi's Forza Italia and Matteo Salvini's Lega Nord. The two leaders were divided not only by their dispute over the centre-right leadership, but also by their political aspirations. While Salvini was pushing his party down a radical-right/Front National route, Berlusconi seemed to prefer a 'moderate' project, which could bring him close to Matteo Renzi's PD.
18. See the annual report edited by Demos & Pi on 'The Italians and the State', https://www.demos.it/2017/pdf/4177itasta2016_20170107.pdf.

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